

'Over the Pond and Across the Water': Developing the Field of 'Gendered Organizations'

Patricia Yancey Martin* and David Collinson

This article is concerned with the development of gendered organizations as a field of study. It begins by exploring some of the factors that militate against integrating organization studies and gender studies and gendered organizations scholarship over national/continental divides. Increasingly doubtful about whether traditional (mainstream and critical) organization theories will or can adequately address gender, we contend that scholars of gendered organizations should 'strike out' on our/their own, 'boldly going' into unfamiliar territory to create new, innovative theories, concepts and ideas. We make various suggestions about possible future directions for theorizing and research.

Keywords: organization studies, gender studies, gendered organizations, geographic/cultural divides, improvisation

Introduction

In a recent article, Dana Britton (2000) acknowledged the remarkable emergence of a 'gendered organizations' field in only a decade. Pioneers who paved the way for this development include Rosabeth Kanter (1977), Kathy Ferguson (1984), and Cynthia Cockburn (1983, 1988), among many others but perhaps the publication of Joan Acker's 1990 paper, 'Hierarchies, bodies and jobs: a gendered theory of organizations' best marks its birth. (Joanne Martin's [1990] account of a corporate woman who had a Caesarean section birth to avoid interrupting her work appeared at that time too.)

The multitude of articles and books about 'gendered organizations', 'gendered occupations', and 'gendered work' that have appeared since the mid-1980s shows the breadth and depth of interest in this area. This journal, *Gender, Work and Organization*, was founded in accord with these

Address for correspondence: *Patricia Yancey Martin, Department of Sociology, Florida State University, Tallahassee, FL 32306-2270, USA, e-mail: pmartin@coss.fsu.edu

developments. The gendered organizations field has emerged because feminist/gender scholars have committed to rewriting/revising organization theory and research such that women's experiences and voices, and the lives of 'men as men', are represented rather than silenced (Calás and Smircich, 1992a, 1992b; Collinson and Hearn, 1994, 1996; J. Martin, 1990). We have reviewed these historical developments elsewhere (P. Martin, 1998b; P. Martin and Collinson, 1998) and Joan Acker (1998) recently speculated on their future.

In order to build on this work, Britton recommends the need for greater analytical rigour in specifying the meaning of concepts like 'gendered organization'. Concerned with the same overall objective of enhancing the study of gender and organization, the following article has two somewhat different goals and concerns. One is to review challenges that we and others face in collaborating to study gendered organizations 'over the pond/across the water' (see explanation below) and a second is to argue for a 'gendered organization' field that is separate from both organization studies and gender studies.

The first half of the article considers challenges to developing a 'gendered organization' perspective. It reviews factors that militate against integrating (i) organization studies and gender studies and (ii) gendered organizations scholarship over national/continental divides. Due to space limitations, we focus on three cultural and institutional conditions that contribute to divergence, rather than integration, of material on gender and organizations. We also consider hurdles that we have faced in working cross-nationally to study gender and organization. A US sociologist woman and a UK business school man, both of whom study gendered organizations, have had difficulty collaborating. We note our surprise at discovering differences in assumptions about gender and organizations, theory/ies, methods, literatures with which we are familiar, and social networks within which we work.

Despite many barriers, creative work across disciplinary as well as national/continental boundaries is, we believe, possible. In fact, the emerging gendered organizations field provides fertile common ground for such a development. Accordingly, the second main section of the article argues for a separate gendered organizations field. Just as Kuhn (1970) says hegemonic theories in physics are incapable of being fundamentally altered by tinkering, including negative (or disconfirming) findings, we are increasingly doubtful about whether traditional (mainstream and critical) organization theories can be modified adequately to address gender. According to Gherardi:

Organizational theory as a body of knowledge about organizations and as a theoretical discourse has adopted the gender perspective somewhat belatedly compared to other academic disciplines like history or literature. OT [organization theory] has been more tenacious than other

disciplines in defending a 'gender-neutral' position which minimizes gender differences. (2002, p. 24)

Given this history, and few signs of forthcoming improvement, we recommend the creation of new theories, 'gendered organization' theories, that represent the experiences of all organization members, not only managers/controllers or the gender-free, race-free, ageless, sexless, and un-embodied mythical 'empty slot' worker (Acker, 1990). Toward this end, we contend that those who care about this area should 'strike out' on their own, 'boldly going' into unfamiliar territory, carrying a healthy disregard for established boundaries and assumptions. Drawing on the jazz metaphor that is increasingly influential in organization studies (Hatch, 1999), we urge gendered organization scholars to improvise with all and any materials and ideas that they/we deem useful in building on previous insights about gendered organizational processes. We begin by reviewing some of the disciplinary, gendered and geo-cultural forces that militate against integration.

Pressures to diverge

A number of conditions encourage the divergence, rather than integration, of organization studies and gender studies. We focus on three: (i) disciplinary fragmentation; (ii) gender composition; and (iii) geographical distance associated with cultural differences in theory and methods, institutionalized academic and professional practices, and social networks.

Organization studies, gender studies: fragmented disciplines

Organization studies is fragmented by the different academic units within which faculty are located and the different theories and interests they favour. Organization studies, a phrase used more on the European than North American side of the Atlantic, encapsulates multiple disciplinary interests. In general, the phrase stands for management units in UK business schools and management and organization behaviour foci in US business schools. US sociologists seldom use the term, instead calling themselves 'organization sociologists'. Public administration and psychology faculty focus on the social psychology of internal organizational dynamics and form somewhat distinct groups. These sub-disciplines differ in the theories and methods they use and journals they publish in. As a result, organization studies stands for an aggregate of people who identify as organization scholars with varying interests, activities, and professional associates; their chief commonality is their identity as organization scholars.

Gender studies (a term rarely used in the USA) is similarly fragmented. Gender studies began as women's studies with early foci on violence against

women, income and educational inequality, women's unequal treatment in the workplace and home/family, women's political rights, and so on. Gender studies evolved in many directions with some (but not all) scholars identifying as feminists. Some focused on institutions like the family, church, and politics, others on organizations and work, others on bodies, weight, appearance, the women's movement, and so on. From the outset, women's/gender studies was multidisciplinary with historians, political scientists, literary scholars, sociologists, anthropologists, philosophers, and religion scholars working together. As Gherardi (2002) notes, feminists speak in many voices and have many interests. Diversity and fragmentation within gender studies partly explain why integration with organization studies is so difficult.

Gherardi (2002) argues that the separateness of organization theory and feminist theory is inevitable except for an occasional 'confluence' of effort and that this condition is not regrettable. She encourages both feminist theory and organization theory to view itself as partial understandings of how knowledge is embedded in power relations. While taking Gherardi's point, we see divergence as having costs. Organization theories and research that represents gender as absent from workplaces silence the voices of the less powerful, especially, but not only, women. Theories that represent work processes as gender free (or 'race' free) obscure gender's role in the social organization of work and do harm when taught to students and bureaucrats as accurate portrayals of organizational life, as many have noted (e.g. Acker, 1990; Calás and Smircich, 1991; J. Martin, 1990, 1994).

Gender composition, gendered practices

A second condition that fosters divergence is gender itself. Most organization scholars are men (J. Martin, 1994), most gender scholars are women, a pattern with historical roots and contemporary effects. Gender scholarship was developed by feminists focusing on women's lives (but they also analysed men's lives relative to women, e.g. violence, excluding women from public life, sexual exploitation, and so on). Feminists/women's studies/gender studies paid little attention to organizations until recently but, in the past decade, have helped to found the gendered organizations field. During this decade, scholars also began studying men and masculinities at work and enhanced development of the gendered organizations field, as we review later.

In contrast to gender studies, organization studies was developed and is populated largely by men (Calás and Smircich, 1992a, 1992b, 1997; Ferguson, 1997; Gherardi, 1995). Mostly it has ignored gender. Max Weber theorized bureaucracy in a time when women could not own property, attend university, or hold most paying jobs yet Weber, who was keenly aware of power, failed to address gender (J. Martin and Knopoff, 1997).

Men's theories, lives, and interests are foundational to 'classic' organization theories yet these theories claim to be gender-neutral (Calás and Smircich, 1991). J. Martin and Knopoff (1997, p. 33) show how Weber's 'language [and its absence or silence] can be used to suppress women and other subordinated groups, sometimes without mentioning women directly'.

Gender affects divergence in other ways. When a field is numerically dominated by one gender and that same gender has more power, for example, relative to journal editorships, controlling funds, or occupying elite chairs, the other gender may be excluded or subordinated and marginalized, even if unintentionally. Pressures on men to avoid gender as a speciality are greater than the reverse because gender is often taken to mean women and women's work that, compared to men and men's work, is devalued in pay, status, promotions, etc. Senior academics often discourage junior colleagues from studying gender, advising them to stick to a 'mainstream' research agenda and avoid such a marginal, politicized topic. In this climate, interested scholars who avoid gender to protect their careers narrow the field's diversity and help marginalize gendered organization scholarship.

Citation patterns, and the reputational capital that accrues from being cited, vary by gender (Baldi, 1998; Burt, 1998; Xie and Shauman, 1998). Men cite men more than they cite women whereas women cite women and men about equally (Cole, 1979; P. Martin, 1982). Differences in such patterns cannot be fully explained by content, furthermore. If few men study gender and many women study gender, men may cite women less because women's work is less pertinent to theirs; women may cite men more (than the reverse) because men's work is viewed as 'classic' and/or because men are the publishing gatekeepers. Baldi (1998) shows, however, that men cite women less even in fields where the content is 'non-human'. For example, in a speciality area of physics known as celestial masers, the single best predictor of citations was author's gender, after taking account of differences in proportions of men and women and many control variables. That is, articles written by women were cited much less than articles written by men, prompting Baldi to conclude that 'women's work is strongly devalued in astrophysics' (1998, p. 843).

Geography: spatial distance, cultural divides

When growing up in the deep South of the USA, Pat Martin's family used a phrase 'across the water' to describe cousins who went to Europe in the army. When she went to England on sabbatical in 1979, she heard a parallel British phrase for the USA and Canada, 'over the pond'. These similar but not identical phrases draw attention to cultural differences symbolized by a vast body of water and thousands of miles. Despite a common language, North America and the UK have different academic traditions, values,

meanings and practices that can hinder the accumulation and communication of ideas across the water/over the pond.

This section focuses on the effects of geography as a contributor to cultural differences. Why does North American and European scholarship often proceed along parallel rather than intersecting tracks? How do theories, methods, academic and professional practices, and social networks foster divergence? We are interested in divergence among people separated by nation and/or continent and associated values, customs and practices but who have interests in common.

Theory vs data, constructionism vs positivism

Working across the pond is challenged by differing views of what constitutes 'useful' knowledge and proper analytic methods. Having different words for the same idea or different theories altogether poses problems; using the same theories differently is also a hurdle. Different views of how research is conducted, and towards what end, are divisive. Such differences, while not based solely on culture, are exacerbated by geographical distance.

In general, US and European scholars (and not just those in the gendered organizations area) use theory and data differently. To oversimplify, Europeans are more enamoured of theory and theorizing, while North American scholars place a higher priority on data and 'rigorous' research methods (Hofstede, 1996). As a result, they often view each other's work as less competent or useful.¹ To North Americans, UK and European papers tend to read as if the goal is to invoke complex, obscure theory while paying scant attention to data or findings. European work seems to be concerned with theoretical debates and ontological and epistemological assumptions to the near exclusion of data. Similarly, UK/European scholars view North American work as paying too little attention to theory and as overly concerned with numerical results. They appear to be obsessed with the 'scientific' rigour of positivist methods. Despite extensive critiques of positivist principles (e.g. Steffy and Grimes, 1992),² the USA love affair with positivism persists.

Theories favoured by US organization scholars are as a rule positivist and deductive rather than social constructionist and inductive. Favoured theories in sociology such as resource dependence, population ecology, and institutional theory pay minimal attention to internal dynamics such as agency and voice, power and resistance, and identity-related practices (P. Martin, 1998a). As Kalleberg (2001) notes, US sociologists began in the 1960s to focus on the environment to the neglect of many other issues.³ This development led to separation of the study of work (labour markets, labour processes, trade unions) from the study of occupations and professions and both from the study of organizations. Understanding global developments such as the declining significance of firms, increasing reliance on work

teams over specific jobs or occupations, and the internal labour market processes of occupations and professions can be enhanced if each area addresses the other from its own perspective, Kalleberg says. As discussed earlier, and partly related to these developments, dominant theories in the USA represent members' gender as irrelevant to organizational structure, processes, and outcomes.⁴

Critical approaches such as social constructionism, post-structuralism, and postmodernism in Europe and elsewhere are ignored by many US organization scholars in business, public administration, psychology and sociology departments. Positivist and functionalist philosophies remain hegemonic. Consequently, critical scholars, those who question the claims of logico-rational depictions of organizations, work in a more hostile climate in the USA than in the UK and Europe.

We support a caution offered by Grey (2000) about geographic differences. He argues that differences between North America and Europe are *political distinctions* for which continents are only proxies. North American 'normal science' is globally dominant in management and organization research, thereby blocking critical work on both sides of the pond. As a result, 'US scholars working outside functionalism are as excluded as those from Europe and functionalist scholars from Europe are as welcome as those from the USA' (2000, p. 12). A positivist centre encompasses much US research and some European work and a critical margin encompasses much European research and some US work, Grey says. Although he does not address gender, his analysis supports our thesis that institutional academic influences produce divisions between 'a non-critical centre and a more critical margin'. Cultural differences associated with spatial separation thus foster, but do not simply determine, different norms for theory and methods that in turn affect organization studies as well as gender studies and the emerging field of gendered organizations.

Institutionalized academic practices

Institutional practices by people in academic and professional organizations also foster divergence. The policing of journals, managing of professional meetings, and pressure to meet tenure and career system demands can discourage scholars separated by 'water/the pond' from building upon each other's work.

Journal practices. Scholarly journals use different norms and conventions in different societies. The nature, detail, and extent of reviews and editorial policies in North America, especially the USA, differ from those in Continental Europe, the UK, and the Pacific Rim countries. Anonymous reviews tend to be more detailed in North America where natural science assumptions dominate and editors require so many re-writes that a paper's

distinctiveness can be compromised. Published articles conform to a tried and tested 'scientific' formula that is non-critical and reflects positivist 'standards'. Theoretical issues are often under-explored; functionalist, prescriptive and managerialist approaches are encouraged if not required.⁵ European journals such as *Organization*, *Human Relations* and *GWO* tend to be more critical and theoretical. Less enamoured with a natural science model, they have more respect for qualitative and ethnographic work.

The journal in which this article appears, *GWO*, reflects such divisions. Editor David Knights wants more international contributors and readers, especially from the USA, Canada, and continental Europe. As associate editors for *GWO*, we share in this goal but we are unsure of how to accomplish it. When *GWO* sends UK papers to the USA for review, they often contain few US references and the same pattern occurs in reverse; authors are often unaware of sources and debates from 'over the pond'. As a result, author and reviewer know different literatures on the same topic and authors sometimes receive harsh criticism for failing to cite these sources. Authors then feel unfairly judged. If journals like *GWO* cannot find ways around this dilemma, they risk becoming country-specific and exclusive rather than international and inclusive.

Issues associated with access, time, and energy foster divergence also. Due to rising costs, libraries are eliminating journals and not subscribing to new ones, thus access to new journals like *GWO* is limited in the USA. Books published in one society are sometimes unavailable in another for months or years. US scholars who do not routinely read *Gender, Work and Organization*, *The Journal of Gender Studies*, or *Human Relations* and UK scholars who do not read *Gender & Society*, *Work and Occupations*, or *Social Problems* are unlikely to know the conventions that these journals follow. When editors resist long reference lists, authors may cut non-national authors first to save space and avoid antagonizing national colleagues by failure to cite them.

Such processes work against the goals of *GWO*, and similar journals, to foster international, integrated scholarship on gender, work and organization. Between 1994 and 2000, approximately 60% of the articles published in *GWO* were by authors based in the UK, roughly 20% in North America, 10% in Europe, and 10% in Australia/New Zealand. There were no contributions from authors located in Asia/Japan, Central/South America, or Africa. This pattern is not exclusive to *GWO*, of course. As reviewers, we know other journals that face similar challenges in promoting work on (gendered) organizations, e.g. *Organization Studies* and *Organization*. Perhaps not surprising, these results suggest that, with some exceptions, the emerging field of gendered organizations is a North America-United Kingdom (plus Australia/New Zealand) phenomenon and, most certainly, an English-language endeavour. This pattern suggests that something will have to change if perspectives from other nations/continents are to be included.

Without question, language poses formidable barriers to collaboration across national and cultural boundaries. The hegemony of English in the academic world can hinder (as well as facilitate) collaboration 'across the pond' and restrict the publication of articles from non-English-speaking countries. To surmount these barriers, some scholars hire coaches and/or translators to improve their English language proficiency but this strategy is hardly feasible or desirable for everyone. We need creative ways to breach language divides that avoid placing the burden solely on authors whose native language is not English. Journals could play a part in encouraging and supporting a broader cross-section of articles from around the globe.⁶

Conference practices. This article is co-authored by two colleagues, one in a US university, the other in a British university.⁷ In our attempts to create gender scholarship, we have grappled with multiple differences, including but not limited to our national cultures.⁸ When attending conferences in each other's countries we have experienced 'culture-shock' regarding the way papers, debates and arguments are presented. In 1979, Pat Martin attended her first meeting of the European Group of Organization Studies (EGOS) where she observed European participants sitting with glazed eyes to 'wait out' presentations by US sociologists reporting regression results. Similarly, when Europeans presented, US participants saw them as overly reliant on 'soft data' and inclined to be polemical, excessively theoretical, and often obscure. Different conventions about theory and methods caused both sides to look askance at the other. Pat also learned, by violating the norm, that EGOS participants attend only one working group throughout a meeting rather than wander from group to group as her US experience allowed.

When David Collinson attended his first American Sociological Association meeting in 1984, he was surprised by presenters' heavy reliance on statistical methods and quantified data. Debates about the implications of findings were not encouraged even during the few minutes reserved for discussion at the end of presentations. He was surprised by the non-critical, positivist values and quantitative techniques that were intellectually ascendant.

North American conferences usually require fully developed papers by submission deadlines that are often months before the meeting. Submissions undergo a rigorous anonymous review process, in many ways akin to a journal submission. Once a paper is accepted for presentation, analysis and examination of the paper's themes appear to end. At the conference, sessions include four or five papers, the delivery of which can preclude discussion. Speakers confronted by short time periods (fifteen or twenty minutes) often run over while reducing their presentations to a few key points.

By contrast, UK and European conferences tend to be more relaxed at the paper screening stage. In some cases, an abstract is sufficient for acceptance. At the point of presentation, substantial time is allocated to discussion and

authors are liable to undergo rigorous interrogation of their theoretical framework and assumptions. This greater dedication of time for discussion in European conferences can facilitate highly productive debate. But not always. It can also have unfortunate effects if debate becomes hostile. As an example, the UK labour process conference has recently become contentious. The original objectives of the conference were to provide a platform for critical studies of the workplace and, in particular, to encourage young researchers to present theoretical and empirical ideas to a supportive but critical audience. A number of edited books have followed from the conferences. In recent years, however, debates about post-structuralist analysis have become acrimonious and sometimes hostile. Competitive confrontations by some of the men have alienated younger scholars, men and women alike, who no longer attend.

Academic career structures. Academic career structures including tenure systems urge compliance with different standards in different nations. Career progress frequently constructs and confirms particular identities and makes individuals susceptible to institutional pressures while nurturing competition (Grey, 1993). This can divide academic communities at both individual and institutional levels. However, a new scholar has little choice but to try to succeed in such a system if s/he wants to become a permanent member of staff.

An extensive record of publishing in refereed journals and success in obtaining external funding is a pre-condition for career progress on both sides of the pond. Measuring performance through publication and grants/funded research is a long-term practice in North America and similar trends are mounting in the UK. Both institutions and individuals must demonstrate 'productivity'. The UK's Research Assessment Exercise, probation processes, and annual reviews/appraisals are increasing concerns about publications and intensifying competition within and across institutions. The 'seven years' to tenure standard for new academics in the USA encourages compliance with prevailing institutional and professional norms, making deviation from positivist practices risky. Theoretical and/or qualitative work tends to take more time. Quantitative studies using national samples of survey data are looked upon favourably even though they often limit the kinds of inductive insights their users can produce. Thus, using them has costs as well as rewards.

Social networks

Professional networks tend to be within-nation and to an extent within gender, especially for women (McGuire, 2000; Smith-Lovin and McPherson, 1993). In the USA, small groups of collaborators and mentors cite each other's work, review each other's papers, help each other publish, and

decide (or not) to award grant funding (on citation patterns, see Usdiken and Pasadeos, 1995). For example, the bulk of US sociology of organizations research is produced by small bounded groups who know each other's projects, data, and theoretical orientations and take a sponsorship stance when reviewing manuscripts and grant applications. 'Outsiders' unknown to them have less chance for success. Also, US organization scholars infrequently cite and build upon work by non-US scholars.

Pressure to comply with normative standards within national borders reinforces attention on the work of national colleagues and discourages attention to external contributors. Authors must comply with national practices to succeed in part because promotion and tenure decisions are *local* (especially in the early stages of a career). Aligning with scholars in one's home nation and citing national colleagues may be necessary strategies for gaining permanent status and promotions on both sides of the pond; a side effect is that these practices often foster divergence of both research and theory/ies.

As noted earlier, citation studies show that women are not included in the citation networks of men to the extent men are included in women's (Baldi, 1998; Cole, 1979). Consequently, women's work and men's work tend to constitute parallel literatures rather than cumulating into an integrated whole (see Smith-Lovin and McPherson [1993] on women's and men's network patterns).

Is integration possible ... or worth the effort?

We agree that some organization theories are more useful than others for taking gender into account. For example, critical theory, post-structural theory, and post-modern theory have this potential. J. Martin (2002) argues that critical organization theory and feminist theory overlap in ways that are potentially useful to both. Highlighting their 'unexplored synergies', she observes that despite a number of important commonalities, critical theorists rarely cite feminist scholarship while feminist theorists are just as unlikely to incorporate critical theory. She criticizes some critical theory for assuming that feminist approaches are simply a narrow sub-theme of a 'broader' critical perspective. By contrast, she asserts that 'any domain of inquiry is by definition narrow if it excludes women's concerns' (2002, p. 41). Martin remains optimistic, however, that integration is not only desirable but also possible.

While we agree about *potential* synergies, we are increasingly sceptical that critical scholars will incorporate gender analysis and its wide-ranging implications into their work on organizational issues like structure, strategy, power, resistance, and subjectivity. In our experience, feminist and pro-feminist writers have been the primary agents in producing studies concerned

to identify and explore potential synergies. Since critical, post-structural, and post-modern organization scholars have not developed a reciprocal focus on gender (or on age, sexuality, able-bodiedness, and race/ethnicity) it might be time to question whether the effort to 'reform', reframe, and revise organization theory is worth the trouble or, indeed, is possible. Alternatively, would we be advised to 'strike out' on our own, to refocus our efforts on the development of a 'gendered organizations' field? If so, how would we do this?

Striking out — through improvisation!

The metaphor of 'striking out' has several meanings. In baseball, a batter gets three 'strikes' and is 'out', thus losing a turn to bat. If we take this route, we may 'strike out' as in lose the chance to be heard or be influential. Yet, to 'strike out' also means to enter uncharted territory, forge into the unknown, and take chances and risks. Developing a new field of 'gendered organizations' (or 'gendered occupations', 'gendered work', or 'gender, work, and organization') would entail such contingencies.

Without question, and despite the foregoing divergent pressures, critical scholars of 'gendered organizations' have already provided a role model for striking out. They have produced path-breaking challenges to hegemonic conceptions of organizations by using feminist, critical, post-structural, and post-modern theory (e.g. Calás and Smircich, 1997; Ferguson, 1997; Gherardi, 1995; J. Martin and Knopoff, 1997). Studies such as these have produced new and arresting insights into gendered organizational processes and have stimulated new forms of representation, new ways of giving voice to subordinated groups and new challenges to gendered power relations.

Many of the foregoing studies have adopted eclectic, multi-perspectival and in some cases experimental approaches to the analysis of gendered organizations. Accordingly, in addition to striking out, we propose 'improvisation' as a useful metaphor for advancing a feminist analysis of gendered organizations (Crossan and Sorrenti, 1997; Weick, 1998). Improvisation does not refer to the absence of structure and order (as is sometimes presupposed) but the playing with and creative reinterpretation of structures. For Weick (1998, p. 544) it involves, 'reworking precomposed material and designs in relation to unanticipated ideas'. Arguing that improvisation is akin to conversing, rethinking and organizing, he suggests that 'living itself is an exercise in improvisation' (1998, p. 550). To exemplify this he quotes a passage from Mary Catherine Bateson (1989) whose observations highlight some of the ways that improvisation can also take gendered forms, as she suggests:

the physical rhythms of reproduction and maturation create sharper discontinuities in women's lives than in men's ... [T]he ability to shift from one preoccupation to another, to divide one's attention to improvise in new circumstances, has always been important to women.

Hatch uses jazz as a metaphor for 'redescribing' the concept of organizational structure (1999) and for 'organizing' in the twenty-first century (1998). She identifies parallels between jazz improvisation and the emerging vocabulary of organization studies such as flexibility, adaptability, teamwork, loose boundaries, minimal hierarchy and sense-making. Through improvisation, jazz musicians interpret structure loosely and playfully, which in turn encourages creativity, experimentation, imagination and innovation. In its celebration of ambiguity, emotionality and temporality, jazz improvisation breaches structure and control before creating a new, more complex order.

The metaphor of jazz improvisation may help us re-think the structures and practices of gendered organizations. It could stimulate new metaphors, new vocabularies and new modes of thinking about the conditions, processes and consequences of gendered organizations. Equally, the improvisation metaphor resonates with the emphasis in feminist research on women's simultaneous and creative use of multiple skills, knowledge and experience (Davies and Rosser, 1986). With its roots in ethnic/racial oppression, jazz is also a potentially radical means by which the subordinated can give 'voice' to their experience of exploitation. The metaphor of improvisation reflects and reinforces an emphasis on the changing, shifting and dynamic character of (gendered) organizational processes. Improvisation examines issues like ambiguity, contradiction, paradox and multiplicity that are central to the analysis of gendered organizations (see *GWO* special issue, 1998). It is precisely this kind of approach to the analysis of gendered organizations that we would like to encourage.

Both striking out and improvisation are risky and we cannot know the outcome in advance. A new field has fewer conventions to limit risk-taking and enforce orthodoxy. Britton (2000) criticizes users of the term 'gendered organizations' for laxity in specifying its premises but she also acknowledges the heuristic potential of this emerging field.⁹ While we would not wish to prescribe too tightly the (multiple) meanings and definitions of gendered organizations for fear of constraining insight and creativity, let us briefly consider what this more expansive, eclectic and improvised field of 'gendered organizations' might include.

'Improvised striking out' holds promise in at least three areas: national, gender, and disciplinary inclusiveness; theoretical and methodological innovation; and an expansive stance on content, methods, theory, and approach.

National, gender and disciplinary inclusiveness

Scholars in the gendered organizations field are diverse nationally, disciplinarily, and relative to gender compared with writers on organizations generally. Despite barriers, many are building on each other's work across national boundaries (e.g. Gherardi, 2002; J. Martin, 2002; Sinclair, 1995). In

the 1980s, men joined women as investigators of gender and work issues (e.g. Bielby and Baron, 1986; Cohn, 1985; Miller, 1986). Increasingly, men's identities and actions as men, and the social dynamics of masculinities, became key areas of concern (Collinson, 1992; Whitehead and Barrett, 2001). Scholarship on men and masculinities at work is burgeoning on multiple continents, fostering innovative theory and methods (Mills, 1999). Gendered organization scholars are collaborating across disciplinary boundaries also — with business school and sociology faculty, in particular, finding common ground. This article is testament to two scholars' commitment to transcend national, gender, and disciplinary divides.

Theoretical and methodological innovation

'Gendered organization' scholars are free to do unorthodox, creative, and non-conventional work, both theoretically and methodologically. Freed from mainstream constraints, they can work inductively, creating new concepts and methods that can explore and examine the multiple conditions, meanings and consequences of 'gendered' work. Scholarship by Gherardi (1995; Bruni and Gherardi, 2001, 2002), Kondo (1990), and Fletcher (1999), among others (Bird, 1996), reflect these developments. While many publications have sprung from mainstream organization studies perspectives (e.g. post-modern theory, narrative analysis, relational theory, and so on), authors have ventured into uncharted terrain without concern for mainstream approval (e.g. Calás and Smircich, 1991).

An expansive stance on content, theory, methods, and claims

No longer constrained by mainstream conventions, gendered organizations scholars can accept any scholarly work informed by feminist values that they find useful. Surveys, archival data (on occupations, organizations, or jobs), experimental research (e.g. on perceptions or group processes), and so on, are as acceptable as qualitative fieldwork, ethnographic work, deconstruction, and narrative analysis. If a work sheds light on the gender of organizations and work (or its absence), it can be used. Constructionists and deconstructionists can learn from quantitative work just as positivists may learn from critical writers; cross-methods/cross-theoretical critique can produce promising research agendas and theoretical insights.

Furthermore, the field of gendered organizations needs to expand beyond gender to embrace all forms of inequality which lack legitimacy in organizations that claim to use merit and performance as their evaluative standards. Indeed, a critically important feature of an expansive gendered organizations field is its questioning of status differences other than gender (see also Ferguson, 1994). As Lorber (2000) notes, much of feminist theory intends to undermine gender and all other status distinctions that create and

sustain inequality in work/economic and other institutional spheres (also Lorber, 1996, 1999). Certain streams of feminist work on gendered organizations already address race/ethnicity (Collins, 1997; Jacques, 1997; Ostrander, 1999; Pierce, 2001), sexuality (Hearn, 1985, 1992; Hearn and Parkin, 1997; Hearn *et al.*, 1989; Roper, 1996; Williams *et al.*, 1999), and able-bodiedness, appearance, weight, and social class. We expect this trend to accelerate.

A fundamental contribution of gender scholarship has been to frame organizations as systems of power relations that are embedded in gender, arguing that they cannot be adequately understood unless gender is acknowledged. Building on these insights, feminist scholarship could extend its appreciation of the importance of organizational processes in reproducing gender inequalities (and vice versa). Indeed, the workplace is a, if not the, prime arena where men in developed countries construct their masculine identities and relations with each other and, as the privileged and dominant gender, significantly shape femininities and women (P. Martin, 1996, 2001; Whitehead, 1998). Thus it is important to (re-)examine work organizations' structures, practices and ideologies, including their resonance with bureaucracy, capitalism and western conceptions of science, in order to understand how masculinities that are hegemonic in the developed world today are created and sustained (Collinson and Hearn, 1994, 1996). For example, if powerful corporate men practise 'destructive' masculinities under the guise of behaving as 'gender-free' bureaucrats, managers, or scientists, they may place people, organizations and even society at risk (e.g. Maier and Messerschmidt, 1998).

The gendered conditions and consequences of contemporary organizational processes such as team-working, outsourcing, e-commerce, surveillance, business process re-engineering, McDonaldisation and globalization all require more extensive feminist analysis. Similarly, the gendered nature of 'resistance' in the workplace (Collinson, 2000) and in anti-corporate social movements (Klein, 2000) needs further examination. In addition, even apparently more 'innocent' interactional dynamics like workplace humour and joking relations can reflect and reinforce complex and sometimes quite damaging gendered power asymmetries and these could be very fruitful lines of enquiry (Collinson, 2002; Collinson and Collinson, 1996). The field of gendered organizations also expands beyond paid work to address the complex relations between 'work' and 'life'. Given that gender equality incorporates a concern with work/life balance (Lewis, 1997), it needs to examine how this might be achieved as well as critically exploring productivist and masculinist organizational processes that continue to privilege 'work' over 'life' (e.g. Collinson and Collinson, 1997).

A final aspect of expansiveness is insistence on the fluidity and permeability of definitions, boundaries, and polarities (Lorber, 2000), including respect for variability in the specification and uses of concepts, theories, and

methods. Indeed, an expansive gendered organizations field will welcome debates over whether a gendered organizations field should even exist, much less the meaning of specific concepts and perspectives. One would assume, for example, that Alvesson and Billing (1997) do not favour development of this field given their view that feminists already make too much of gender in/of organizations. In our view, Alvesson and Billing miss the point of a feminist critique of gender in organizations. Many, if not all, feminists seek to make gender at work more visible and acknowledged (within a wider discipline that historically has rendered gender invisible) in order to expose its role in creating inequality so the inequality it fosters can be challenged. An expansive gendered organizations field will provide a forum for debate on this issue.

Similarly, it will resist 'bounding' of the diverse and often incompatible kinds of work that gendered organizations scholars do. Neat typifications, such as Britton's (2000) recent list of three — of premise, numerical composition, and discourse — will be questioned. P. Martin identified eight structural and eleven interactional aspects of gendered organizations scholarship in the early 1990s (1992) and, we suspect, a current census would replicate these and add at least as many more. We view diversity as a strength, a sign of viability and creativity, not an indictment of lack of either orthodoxy or definitional precision. The standard for good work should be clarity, provocativeness, innovativeness, utility, and insight, not uniformity or consensus. In accord with Sandra Harding (1991), we believe multiple perspectives, experiences, conceptions, theories, and methods produce a 'less false' rendering of gender as it actually 'exists' (or not) and 'works'.

Conclusion

We invite readers of this article to join us in improvising, in 'striking out' to advance and consolidate an emergent field of study. Gendered organization scholars in North America, the UK, and Australia/New Zealand as well in Italy, Denmark, Belgium, Finland, and other European nations are numerous enough to ground the field. The journal *Gender, Work and Organization* is a valuable resource and the recent 'Rethinking Gender, Work and Organization' conference at Keele, organized by GWO, brought together scholars from many nations, fostering acquaintance and awareness and, we hope, accumulation and collaboration across boundaries. Extending Kalleberg's suggestion (2001), we encourage 'gendered work' and 'gendered occupations' scholars to look afresh at work done from a 'gendered organization' or 'gendered labour markets' perspective (and, of course, the reverse) to see how each can enrich the other. We celebrate the emerging, multidisciplinary field of gendered organizations. If we decide later that the field has run its

course or stopped being useful, we can abandon it. In the meantime, we believe that concerted collaboration across national/cultural, disciplinary, theoretical, methodological, gender, race/ethnicity, sexuality, and other status distinctions can foster inclusive, challenging and provocative scholarship on gender, work, and organization.

Acknowledgement

Thanks to the anonymous reviewers for their helpful comments.

Notes

1. One result of differences like these is that they can become polarized and mutually reinforcing. In such cases each side of the pond is caricatured, stereotyped and downgraded by the other. Stereotyping over-simplifies and tends to result in a wholesale rejection of 'the other'. Rather than recognize the value of diverse perspectives and methods and attempt to integrate them, academics (both critical and mainstream) on each side of the pond sometimes dismiss the others' work and elevate their own. In so doing they can exclude alternative perspectives while also constructing and sustaining their own identities.
2. Indeed, it could even be argued that the ascendancy of 'hard' quantitative research methods over 'soft' qualitative approaches especially in North America itself reflects a masculine understanding of research and analysis, that elevates prediction, control and objectivity over interpretation, subjectivity and open-endedness.
3. The unit of analysis in these theories is the entire organization and some scholars who use them seem to imply that organizations can act without any persons' agency involved.
4. Given their concepts and premises, sociological theories of organizations cannot easily take gender into account, although some do better than others (P. Martin, 1998b). Among the least able to incorporate gender are bureaucracy, resource dependency, and population ecology theory while institutional/neo-institutional theory is intermediate in capacity.
5. We are over-simplifying and ignoring internal differences and exceptions in order to underscore our point about general tendencies and characteristics.
6. Some suggestions to increase participation in gendered organization scholarship by scholars in non-English-speaking nations are as follows: (1) journals like *Gender, Work and Organization* could appoint rotating 'language editors' with the responsibility to improve the readability (flow, syntax, etc.) of articles that are translated into English after being written in other languages. David Collinson played such a role for *Organization Studies* for a four-year period and the OS editors used the service to encourage submissions from non-English-speaking authors.* (2) Journals could publish occasional articles in languages other than English along with an English-language abstract about the article's key points. (3) Journals could publish abstracts in other languages, perhaps rotating across languages over the course of a year. (4) Promoting computer software that 'translates' across languages could be helpful. Great strides are being made in

- this respect and, in future, authors who write in one language will be able to have their documents translated into other languages with relative ease. In this case, journals will need to check the translation's accuracy and, as with options 2 and 3, may need to hire expert assistance. (5) Promoting cross-national research at international meetings such as the European Sociological Association, the European Group of Organization Studies, the Academy of Management and the International Sociological Association might increase interest in collaborating across national divides to study gendered organizations. (6) Finally, the Internet can be used to strengthen ties among scholars separated by distance. Indeed, without email, this article would probably never have been written. The ease of 'attaching' and exchanging files greatly facilitated our efforts to conceptualize, draft, and revise this article.
7. Indeed, it is because our academic experience is primarily based on North America and Europe that we have concentrated on these two continents.
 8. We have also had to address the subtle disciplinary differences in our own approaches, informed by sociological and organization behavioural perspectives, respectively.
 9. In neglecting the context in which those whom she criticizes produced their work, Britton seems to be rather unfair in some of her evaluations. She also fails to provide precise definitions of what she means by 'gendered organization', adopting different meanings at different places in her argument. In our view, gender is an inevitable and irreducible feature of organizational life. Accordingly, it would be inconceivable to somehow eliminate all gender issues from organizational processes. What feminist analysis can and, in our view, should address are the deep-seated asymmetries and inequalities of gendered organizations and their reproduction through relations, discourses and practices. Informed by this kind of analysis, it could then envision what organizations that are less gender asymmetrical might look like.

Postscript

* We are pleased to say that, having read this article when it was submitted as part of the special issue in October 2001, editor of GWO David Knights swiftly moved to appoint a Language Editor, David Morgan, as well as additional editors who have skills in particular languages.

References

- Acker, J. (1990) Hierarchies, bodies, and jobs: a gendered theory of organizations. *Gender & Society*, 4,2, 139–58.
- Acker, J. (1998) The future of 'gender and organizations'. *Gender, Work and Organization*, 5,4, 195–206.
- Alvesson, M. and Billing, Y.D. (1997) *Understanding Gender and Organizations*. London: Sage.
- Baldi, S. (1998) Normative versus social constructivist processes in the allocation of citations: a network-analytic approach. *American Sociological Review*, 63,6, 829–46.
- Bateson, M.C. (1989) *Composing a Life*. New York: Atlantic Monthly.

- Bielby, W.T. and Baron, J.N. (1986) Men and women at work: sex segregation and statistical discrimination. *American Journal of Sociology*, 91, 759–99.
- Bird, S. (1996) Welcome to the men's club: homosociality and the maintenance of hegemonic masculinity. *Gender & Society*, 10,2, 120–32.
- Britton, D. (1997) Gendered organizational logic: policy and practice in men's and women's prisons. *Gender & Society*, 11,6, 796–818.
- Britton, D. (2000) The epistemology of the gendered organization. *Gender & Society*, 14,3, 418–34.
- Bruni, A. and Gherardi, S. (2001) Omega's story: the heterogeneous engineering of a gendered professional self. In Dent, M. and Whitehead, S. (eds) *Managing Professional Identities: Knowledge, Performativity and the 'New' Professional*. London: Routledge.
- Bruni, A. and Gherardi, S. (2002) En-gendering differences, transgressing the boundaries, coping with the dual presence. In Aaltio-Marjosola, I. and Mills, A.J. (eds) *Gender, Identity and Organizations*. London: Routledge.
- Burt, R.S. (1998) The gender of social capital. *Rationality and Society*, 10,1, 5–46.
- Calás, M. and Smircich, L. (1991) Voicing seduction to silence leadership. *Organization Studies*, 12,4, 567–602.
- Calás, M. and Smircich, L. (1992a) Rewriting gender into organizational theorizing: directions from feminist perspectives. In Reed, M. and Hughes, M. (eds) *Re-thinking Organizations: New Directions in Organizational Research*. London: Sage.
- Calás, M. and Smircich, L. (1992b) Using the F word: feminist theories and the social consequences of organizational research. In Mills, A.J. and Tancred, P. (eds) *Gendering Organizational Analysis*. New Park, CA: Sage.
- Calás, M. and Smircich, L. (1996) From the woman's point of view: feminist approaches to organization studies. In Clegg, S., Hardy, C. and Nord, W. (eds) *Handbook of Organization Studies*. London: Sage.
- Calás, M. and Smircich, L. (1997) Predicando la moral en calzoncillos? Feminist inquiries into business ethics. In Larson, A. and Freeman, R.E. (eds) *Women's Studies and Business Ethics: Toward a New Conversation*. New York/Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Calvert, L.M. and Ramsey, V.J. (1996) Speaking as female and white: a non-dominant/dominant group standpoint. *Organization*, 3,4, 468–85.
- Cockburn, C. (1983) *Brothers*. London: Pluto Press.
- Cockburn, C. (1988) *Machinery of Dominance: Women, Men and Technical Know-How*. Boston: South End.
- Cohn, S. (1985) *The Process of Occupational Sex-Typing: The Feminization of Clerical Labor in Great Britain*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press.
- Cole, J.R. (1979) *Fair Science: Women in the Scientific Community*. New York: Free Press.
- Collins, S. (1997) Black mobility in white corporations: up the corporate ladder but out on a limb. *Social Problems*, 44,1, 55–67.
- Collinson, D.L. (1992) *Managing the Shopfloor: Subjectivity, Masculinity and Workplace Culture*. Berlin: Walter de Gruyter.
- Collinson, D.L. (2000) Strategies of resistance: power, knowledge and subjectivity in the workplace. In Grint, K. (ed.) *Work and Society: A Reader*. Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Collinson, D.L. (2002) Managing humour. *Journal of Management Studies*, 39,2, 269–88.
- Collinson, D.L. and Collinson, M. (1996) 'It's only Dick!': The sexual harassment of women managers in insurance. *Work, Employment, and Society*, 10,1, 29–56.
- Collinson, D.L. and Collinson, M. (1997) Delaying managers: time-space surveillance and its gendered effects. *Organization*, 4,3, 373–405.
- Collinson, D.L. and Hearn, J. (1994) Naming men as men: implications for work, organization, and management. *Gender, Work and Organization*, 1,1, 2–22.

- Collinson, D.L. and Hearn, J. (1996) Breaking the silence on men, masculinities, and managements. In Collinson, D.L. and Hearn, J. (eds) *Men as Managers, Managers as Men: Critical Perspectives on Men, Masculinities, and Managements*. London: Sage.
- Crossan, M. and Sorrenti, M. (1997) Making sense of improvisation. *Advances in Strategic Management*, 14, 155–80.
- Davies, C. and Rosser, J. (1986) Gendered jobs in the Health Service: a problem for labour process analysis. In Knights, D. and Willmott, H. (eds) *Gender and the Labour Process*. Aldershot: Gower.
- Ferguson, K. (1984) *The Feminist Case Against Bureaucracy*. Philadelphia: Temple University Press.
- Ferguson, K. (1994) On bringing more theory, more voices and more politics to the study of organization. *Organization*, 1,1, 81–99.
- Ferguson, K. (1997) Postmodernism, feminism, and organizational ethics: letting difference be. In Larson, A. and Freeman, R.E. (eds) *Women's Studies and Business Ethics: Toward a New Conversation*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Fletcher, J. (1999) *Disappearing Acts: Women's Relational Work in Organizations*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Gherardi, S. (1995) *Gender, Culture, and Symbolism in Organizations*. London: Sage.
- Gherardi, S. (1996) Gendered organizational cultures: narratives of women travellers in a male world. *Gender, Work and Organization* 3,4, 187–201.
- Gherardi, S. (2002) Feminist theory and organizational theory: a dialogue on new bases. In Knudsen, C. and Tsoukas, H. (eds) *Organizational Theory as Science: Prospects and Limitations*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Grey, C. (1993) Career as a project of the self and labour process discipline. *Sociology*, 28,2, 479–98.
- Grey, C. (2000) Them and us? From a geographical to a political understanding of management and organization research in North America and Europe. Paper presented to the European Group of Organization Studies (EGOS), Helsinki, July.
- Harding, S. (1991) *Whose Science? Whose Knowledge?* Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- Hatch, M.J. (1998) Jazz as a metaphor for organizing in the 21st century. *Organization Science*, 9,5, 556–7.
- Hatch, M.J. (1999) Exploring the empty spaces of organizing: how improvisational jazz helps redescribe organizational structure. *Organization Studies*, 20,1, 75–100.
- Hearn, J. (1985) Men's sexuality at work. In Metcalf, A. and Humphries, M. (eds) *The Sexuality of Men*. London: Pluto Press.
- Hearn, J. (1992) *Men in the Public Eye*. London: Routledge.
- Hearn, J. and Parkin, W. (1997) 'Sex' at 'Work'. Hemel Hempstead: Prentice-Hall/Harvester Wheatsheaf.
- Hearn, J., Sheppard, D.L., Tancred-Sheriff, P. and Burrell, G. (eds) (1989) *The Sexuality of Organization*. London: Sage.
- Hofstede, G. (1996) An American in Paris: the influence of nationality on organization theories. *Organization Studies* 17,3, 525–37.
- Jacques, R. (1997) The unbearable whiteness of being: reflections of a pale, stale male. In Prasad, P., Mills, A., Elmes, M. and Prasad, A. (eds) *Managing the Organizational Melting Pot: Dilemmas of Workplace Diversity*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage.
- Kalleberg, A. (2001) View from the chair. *Organizations, Occupations and Work Newsletter*, Spring, 1–4.
- Kanter, R.M. (1977/1993) *Men and Women of the Corporation*. New York: Basic Books.
- Klein, N. (2000) *No Logo*. London: Flamingo.
- Kondo, D. (1990) *Crafting Selves: Power, Gender and Discourse of Identity in a Japanese Workplace*. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press.

- Kuhn, T. (1970) *The Structure of Scientific Revolutions*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Lewis, S. (1997) Family-friendly employment policies: a route to changing organizational culture or playing about at the margins? *Gender, Work and Organization*, 4,1, 13–23.
- Lorber, J. (1996) Beyond the binaries: depolarizing the categories of sex, sexuality, and gender. *Sociological Inquiry*, 66, 143–59.
- Lorber, J. (1999) Crossing borders and erasing boundaries: paradoxes of identity politics. *Sociological Focus*, 32,4, 355–70.
- Lorber, J. (2000) Using gender to undo gender. *Feminist Theory*, 1,1, 79–95.
- Lorber, J. and Martin, P.Y. (2001) The socially constructed body: insights from feminist theory. In Kvisto, P. (ed.) *Illuminating Social Life: Classical and Contemporary Theory Revisited*, 2nd edition. Thousand Oaks, CA: Pine Forge Press.
- Maier, M. and Messerschmidt, J. (1998) Commonalities, conflicts, and contradictions in organizational masculinities: exploring the gendered genesis of the 'Challenger' disaster. *Canadian Review of Sociology and Anthropology*, 35, 325–44.
- Martin, J. (1990) Deconstructing organizational taboos: the suppression of gender conflict in organizations. *Organization Science*, 1,1–21.
- Martin, J. (1994) The organization of exclusion: institutionalization of sex inequality, gendered faculty jobs and gendered knowledge in organizational theory and research. *Organization*, 1, 401–31.
- Martin, J. (2002, in press) Feminist theory and critical theory: unexplored synergies. In Alvesson, M. and Willmott, H. (eds) *Critical Management Studies*. London: Sage.
- Martin, J. and Knopoff, K. (1997) The gendered implications of apparently gender-neutral theory: re-reading Max Weber. In Freeman, E. and Larson, A. (eds) *Women's Studies and Business Ethics: Toward a New Conversation*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- Martin, P.Y. (1982) Fair science: test or assertion? A response to Cole's 'Women in Science'. *Sociological Review*, 30, 478–508.
- Martin, P.Y. (1992) Gender, interaction, and inequality in organizations. In Ridgeway, C. (ed.) *Gender, Interaction, and Inequality*. New York: Springer-Verlag.
- Martin, P.Y. (1996) Gendering and evaluating dynamics: men, masculinities, and managements. In Collinson, D. and Hearn, J. (eds) *Men as Managers, Managers as Men: Critical Perspectives on Men, Masculinities, and Managements*. London: Sage.
- Martin, P.Y. (1998a) Why can't a man be more like a woman? Reflections on Connell's 'Masculinities'. *Gender & Society*, 13,4, 472–6.
- Martin, P.Y. (1998b) Gender and organizations: converging theory, research and practice. *Organizations, Occupations, and Work Newsletter*, Fall, 2–4.
- Martin, P.Y. (2001) Mobilizing masculinities: women's experience of men at work. *Organization*, 8,4, 587–618.
- Martin, P.Y. and Collinson, D. (1998) Gender and sexuality in organizations. In Ferree, M.M., Lorber, J., and Hess, B. (eds) *Revisioning Gender*. Newbury Park, CA: Sage.
- McGuire, G. (2000) Gender, race, ethnicity, and networks. *Work and Occupations*, 27, 500–23.
- Miller, J. (1986) *Pathways in the Workplace: The Effects of Gender and Race on Access to Organizational Resources*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Mills, A. (1999) Comments on gender and organizations in Canada and the USA. Paper at the European Group of Organization Studies Annual Conference, University of Warwick, July.
- Ostrander, S. (1999) Gender and race in a pro-feminist, progressive, mixed-gender, mixed-race organization. *Gender & Society*, 13,5, 628–42.

- Pierce, J. (1995) *Gender Trials: Emotional Lives in Contemporary Law Firms*. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press.
- Pierce, J. (2001) 'Not qualified?' or 'not committed?': A raced and gendered organizational logic. Paper presented at the 2nd *Gender, Work, and Organization* conference. Keele, UK, June.
- Pringle, R. (1989) *Secretaries Talk: Sexuality, Power, and Work*. Sydney: Allen and Unwin.
- Ranson, G. and Reeves, W. (1996) Gender, earnings and proportion of women: lessons from a hi-tech occupation. *Gender & Society*, 10,2, 108–18.
- Reskin, B.F., McBrier, D.B. and Kmec, J.A. (1999) The determinants and consequences of workplace sex and race composition. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 25, 335–61.
- Roper, M. (1996) Seduction and succession: circuits of homosocial desire in management. In Collinson, D. and Hearn, J. (eds) *Men as Managers, Managers as Men: Critical Perspectives on Men, Masculinities, and Managements*. London: Sage.
- Sinclair, A. (1995) Sex and the MBA. *Organization*, 2,2, 295–317.
- Smith-Lovin, L. and McPherson, J.M. (1993) You are who you know: a network approach to gender. In England, P. (ed.) *Theory on Gender, Feminism on Theory*. New York: Aldine de Gruyter.
- Steffy, B.D. and Grimes, A.J. (1992) Personnel/organization psychology: a critique of the discipline. In Alvesson, M. and Willmott, H. (eds) *Critical Management Studies*. London: Sage.
- Usdiken, B. and Pasadeos, Y. (1995) Organizational analysis in North America and Europe: a comparison of co-citation networks. *Organization Studies*, 16,3, 503–26.
- Weick, K. (1998) Improvisation as a mindset for organizational analysis. *Organization Science*, 9,5, 540–55.
- Whitehead, S. (1998) Disrupted selves: resistance and identity work in the managerial arena. *Gender and Education*, 10, 199–215.
- Whitehead, S. and Barrett, F. (eds) (2001) *The Sociology of Masculinity*. Cambridge: Polity Press.
- Williams, C., Giuffre, P.A. and Dellinger, K. (1999) Sexuality in the workplace: organizational control, sexual harassment, and the pursuit of pleasure. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 25, 73–93.
- Xie, Y. and Shauman, K.A. (1998) Sex differences in research productivity: new evidence about an old puzzle. *American Sociological Review*, 63,6, 847–70.